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To cite this article: Jessie Park (2020) Made by Migrants: Southeast Asian Ivories for Local and Global Markets, ca. 1590–1640, The Art Bulletin, 102:4, 66–89, DOI: [10.1080/00043079.2020.1765636](https://doi.org/10.1080/00043079.2020.1765636)

To link to this article: <https://doi.org/10.1080/00043079.2020.1765636>



Published online: 25 Nov 2020.



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Made by Migrants: Southeast Asian Ivories for Local and Global Markets, ca. 1590–1640

JESSIE PARK

For almost 250 years, colonial Manila and southeast China were principal purveyors of ivory sculptures depicting Christian subjects to Spanish territories in Asia and the Americas. Masterfully carved, polished, and painted, these ivories were among the most prized commodities in the Filipino and transpacific markets from the late sixteenth to the early nineteenth century. Ranging in size from only a few inches high to more than three feet, figural ivories represent the Virgin Mary, the infant and crucified Christ, the Archangel Michael, and other notable biblical and postbiblical saints, such as John the Baptist and Saint Dominic. In addition to small plaques and triptychs in relief, ivories of heads and hands were created, to be adjoined to wooden parts and form larger draped or polychrome figures. How these sculptures secured their place in the visual, religious, and economic landscape of Spain's viceroyalties around the Pacific is the subject of my inquiry.

I explore here the early development of ivory carving and trade centered around colonial Manila, spanning roughly fifty years from about 1590 to 1640. These start and end dates pertain to the first documented activity of ivory carving in Manila and the final years of China's Ming dynasty (1368–1644). I aim to demonstrate that the production of ivories of Christian subjects in the Spanish Philippines was inextricably linked to three interlocking developments in Southeast Asia in the making of a global economy: maritime trade, migration, and competition. I contend that these ivories were expressions of shared aspirations between cultures, indicators of the mobility of goods, people, and ideas, and products that emerged out of intense competition across porous borders.

Looked at from the perspective of an emerging strand of global history and art history that challenges Eurocentrism, the Pacific world is considered, in Ryan Crewe's words, "a fluid space of encounter," where mutual interests informed and realized convergence, interaction, and exchange.¹ I will show how, in this dynamic environment, ivory carvers in Southeast Asia supplied the quickly rising ivory market on a regional and transoceanic scale with visually impactful Christian sculptures, which claimed authoritative status as preferred religious objects in the colonial Spanish territories. The key protagonists here are Hokkiens, a population from China's southeastern province of Fujian that had engaged in maritime trade in Southeast Asia for centuries.² In the mid-sixteenth century, their trade with the Spaniards who had settled in the Philippine Islands from New Spain became the start of the Manila-Acapulco trade across the Pacific Ocean, transforming the colonial city of Manila into a global emporium and prime destination for Hokkien migrants. After a brief history of their activity, I will then explore how these Hokkien migrants residing in colonial Manila carved out occupational niches such as ivory carving in the Filipino economy to ensure their survival and increase their wealth and power. In order to enhance the marketability of their product, ivory carvers referenced other Asian export goods that arrived in Manila for visual potency and singularity.

As the production of ivories bearing Christian iconography will be contextualized in a world of cultural, social, ethnic, and religious confluence, a brief note on terminology is necessary. When describing the makers of the ivories, I will use the term "carvers" to



1 *Crucified Christ*, Southeast Asian, ca. 1600–1650, polychrome ivory with traces of gilding, height 24 $\frac{7}{8}$ in. (62.5 cm). Harvard Art Museums/Fogg Museum, Bequest of Grenville L. Winthrop, 1943.1082 (artwork in the public domain; photograph © President and Fellows of Harvard College, provided by Harvard Art Museums)

emphasize those who specifically engaged in ivory carving in southeast China and the Spanish Philippines. When appropriate, I will use the word “artisans” to refer to those who acquired various degrees of artisanal knowledge in different crafts and to reflect a centuries-long tradition in China, where a hierarchical system prevented artisans from forging a professional identity.³ Furthermore, I will use the term “Southeast Asia” to describe the sea-border regions of southeast China, the Philippines, and the Malay Peninsula, as well as several island kingdoms such as Sumatra, Java, Sulawesi, and the Moluccas (or the Spice Islands) that we now collectively call Indonesia. In a similar vein, I will call the ivories discussed here Southeast Asian (instead of Chinese, as some scholars have suggested) to better reflect the seaborne movement of objects and people.⁴

A seventeenth-century sculpture of the crucified Christ at the Harvard Art Museums, Cambridge, Massachusetts, serves as an illuminating example for exploring the early decades of ivory carving in Spanish Manila (Fig. 1). Measuring over two feet in height, this sizable



2 *Crucified Christ* (Fig. 1), detail of the figure's face. Harvard Art Museums/Fogg Museum, Bequest of Grenville L. Winthrop, 1943.1082 (artwork in the public domain; photograph by the author)

3 *Crucified Christ* (Fig. 1), detail of the figure's torso under ultraviolet illumination. Harvard Art Museums/Fogg Museum, Bequest of Grenville L. Winthrop, 1943.1082 (artwork in the public domain; photograph © President and Fellows of Harvard College, provided by Straus Center for Conservation and Technical Studies). Fluorescing bright intertwined lines indicate areas of lost paint.



ivory was sculpted and painted in minute detail.⁵ In the figure's face, for example, a line parallel to the edge of each upper eyelid has been incised and painted over in dark brown (Fig. 2). The only visible part of his sclera, measuring less than four millimeters between the upper and lower eyelids, features the irises and pupils rendered in dark brown paint. Even the figure's eyelashes were meticulously painted, likely with a single bristle brush, as indicated by a few extant minuscule lines in dark brown appearing at the lateral ends of the eyes. To render the debilitating effects of the crucifixion on Christ's body, the torso was painted vividly, though only partial traces of paint are visible to the naked eye. Under ultraviolet light, one can observe below the figure's beard a few intertwining rivulets of red paint terminated by droplets along the central axis of the torso (Fig. 3).⁶ Around the crescent-shaped wound on the right side of the rib cage is what was originally a splash of paint and a spotty line emerging from that wound. These details of the sculpture reify the corporeality of Christ's body, showing the figure at the intersection between life and death.⁷

This meticulously crafted ivory, like many Southeast Asian ivories of Christian subject matter, is believed to have been produced in Manila and China's southeast province of Fujian (and possibly Macao) between the late sixteenth and the early nineteenth centuries (Fig. 4). Some of these

ivories furnished churches in the Philippine Islands. Others were exported across the Pacific Ocean to Central and South America, and some even further across the Atlantic to Europe (particularly Spain). Precisely how these sculptures were used in these various locations needs

a further investigation that exceeds the parameters of my inquiry. To date, it is generally believed that they were employed not only for conversion but also for aiding private devotion or for consumption by patrons who collected rare and expensive objects originating from many corners of the world.

BEYOND STYLE

The global appeal of Southeast Asian ivories has long been attributed to the carvers' skillful interpretation of the European style. This approach is reflected in the words of Margarita Mercedes Estella Marcos, who pioneered the critical study of colonial Asian ivories in the

1960s and 1970s:⁸ “[Asian carvers in the Spanish- and Portuguese-occupied territories] employed local skill in the making of these small sculptures which, though adjusted to European norms in regard to sculptural tradition and iconography, reveal the artful hand of the Orientals as in the delicious and diffuse exoticism of their interpretation.”⁹

Using this proposition as a basis, scholars have presented the ivories under two broadly conceived categories that stress stylistic characteristics developed within the confines of geography: “Hispano-Philippine” for objects believed to have been made in the Spanish Philippines (also known as “Fil-Hispanic”), Fujian, or Macao (also known as “Sino-Portuguese”), and “Indo-Portuguese” and “Singhalese-Portuguese” to describe works likely produced in Portuguese India and Sri Lanka, respectively. These designations pertain to the origins of the ivories as well as the kinds of common stylistic features evolved over time that are distinctively “local” interpretations of the “European.” For example, ivories made in the Philippines and southeast China during the seventeenth century generally feature high arched eyebrows, almond-shaped eyes, elongated noses, heavy eyelids, and wavy hair flowing neatly along the figures' faces.

This approach proved highly effective for the (re)identification of ivo-



4 Map of Southeast Asia, ca. 1600 (M. Roy Cartography)

ries of uncertain or mistaken origin.¹⁰ One example is the case of the Harvard crucified Christ (see Fig. 1). When this object first entered the collection of Harvard's Fogg Art Museum in 1943 as part of a bequest of Grenville Lindall Winthrop (1864–1943), it was cataloged as an

early sixteenth-century Spanish sculpture.¹¹ It escaped the attention of scholars for almost seventy years until, in 2011, the art historian Adam Jasienski, who was then a doctoral student in the Department of History of Art and Architecture at Harvard University, examined the ivory with his adviser, Thomas B. F. Cummins, and colleagues.¹² Through a comparison with similar objects that had already been identified according to the typologies devised by Estella Marcos and other scholars, Jasienski demonstrated a Filipino provenance for the Harvard ivory and dated the object to the first half of the seventeenth century.

Moreover, analyzing the ivories from the vantage point of stylistic traits has opened up the possibility of other locations in Asia that might have been involved in carving these objects. Gauvin Alexander Bailey compared sculptures made for churches in Macao and concluded that ivories of Christian subjects could have also been made in that Portuguese-occupied city by sometime in the first half of the seventeenth century.¹³ Japan has also been suggested, albeit without consensus, as a possible location where ivories of the sleeping Christ child or the crucified Christ might have been produced and shipped for export.¹⁴

These benefits notwithstanding, this binary approach to the study of Asian ivories inhibits further understanding of the sculptures. It assumes a proposition that such “local” interpretations of European models are an outcome of an encounter exclusively between Europeans and non-Europeans, and that they are created solely at the instigation of the Europeans who supplied the prototypes they brought with them to Asia. In addition, by describing a preexisting tradition of ivory carving in China as “secular,” scholars have presupposed the idea that Asian carvers were previously not religious, although the Chinese community in Fujian, for example, had long been worshipping nature, practicing Buddhism and Taoism, creating deities, and building temples.¹⁵

On these grounds, the scholarly focus has been overwhelmingly on addressing the geographic novelty of the ivories. The objects have been treated as a result of a linear process that involves a tacit acceptance of sources from Christian Europe, internalization of unfamiliar forms and iconography, and culturally informed interpretation of European elements. Consequently, the stylistic designations used to describe the ivories do not sufficiently reflect the ethnic, cultural, and professional identities of the ivory carvers. The ivories that have been categorized as “Hispano-Philippine” offer a case in point. Contrary to what the term implies, it has been generally accepted that, at least in the late sixteenth and seventeenth centuries, it was the Chinese in or from the province of Fujian who produced ivory sculptures in their native land or colonial Manila.

In addition to these shortcomings, it must be acknowledged that much remains unknown or unexplored in the scholarship. For example, we do not know precisely when ivory carving of Christian subjects began in Southeast Asia, the number of carvers involved in producing each ivory (particularly for large ones like the Harvard sculpture), or whether or not each production area had more than one workshop dedicated to ivory carving.¹⁶ Moreover, although it has been suggested that Filipinos, too, were engaged in ivory carving in Manila as early as the seventeenth century (and that could be a possibility, given that some Chinese married native Filipino women and produced heirs of mixed race known as *mestizos*), it is difficult to confirm this.¹⁷ Other than archaeological discoveries made from the wrecks of transpacific galleons or rare surviving historical data for specific ivories, dating of the ivories typically relies on stylistic features and intuitive impressions and is more often than not a matter of guesswork.¹⁸ These challenges originate from the scarcity of documentation, a critical issue for art history more broadly in the wake of its “global turn.”¹⁹ Such a gap in our knowledge has inevitably led art historians to interpret the ivories as stylistically hybrid objects created in a new context of “expansion,” “influence,” “assimilation,” “acculturation,”

or “syncretism.”²⁰ This approach, however, intentionally or unintentionally perpetuates a Eurocentric, imperialist narrative that has guided the study of ivories for decades.

Rather than thinking about Southeast Asian ivories in these terms, we might consider asking different kinds of questions that would offer an alternative approach to understanding the sculptures. What role did the centuries-long trade in the South China Sea play in the formation of ivory carving in the Spanish Philippines? How would the ivory carving of Christian iconography have been perceived by Hokkien merchants and migrants working in and around colonial Manila? What kinds of aspirations lay behind the decision of these merchants and migrant ivory carvers to supply the Filipino and transpacific markets? And how did their aspirations inform the production of ivories?

As a first step to answer these questions, it is important to reexamine a frequently referenced primary source, which is the only known documentation that explicitly mentions ivory carving in Manila. It is a letter written to King Philip II of Habsburg Spain in 1590 by Domingo de Salazar (1525–1594), a Dominican bishop who served in the colonial city from 1581 until his death, in which he states:

Now I shall speak of the Sangleys, of whom there would be much to say. . . . What arouses my wonder most is, that when I arrived [they did not know] how to paint anything; but now they have so perfected themselves in this art that they have produced marvelous work with both the brush and the chisel, and I think that nothing more perfect could be produced than some of their [ivory] statues of the Child Jesus which I have seen. . . . The churches are being supplied with the images that these [people] make, which were greatly lacking before. And considering the ability they show in making likenesses of the sculptures that come from Spain, I think that before long we will not need the sculptures made in Flanders.²¹

In the scholarship of Southeast Asian ivories, this quotation is often misunderstood and interpreted without context. The most common scholarly misstep is treating the term “Sangley” which was what the Spaniards called Hokkiens from Fujian, in isolation, as if it exclusively refers to ivory carvers. However, *sangley* (meaning “trade” or “doing business”) was used more broadly by Salazar and many other contemporaneous Spanish writers to include Hokkien merchants, *the* foremost players in the Southeast Asian maritime trade.²² Despite the fact that maritime commerce undergirded the Chinese communities in Fujian, connecting the merchants and nonmerchants in that province to their extended families in East and Southeast Asia for centuries before the establishment of Portuguese and Spanish settlements in these regions, scholars have given virtually no further consideration to the role of this trade in ivory carving, as well as the migrations that ensued.

HOKKIENS IN SOUTHEAST ASIA

To contextualize ivory carving in colonial Manila, a discussion of the Chinese population from the province of Fujian is in order. The history of Hokkiens is inextricably linked to seaborne trade. They first came to engage in the maritime world of Southeast Asia as early as the first century CE, and by the eighth century, they had established robust mercantile relations with various peoples of Southeast Asia.²³ These southern Fujian merchants were usually from the coastal prefectures of Quanzhou and Zhangzhou (see Fig. 4). Their maritime activities increased and expanded significantly during the twelfth and thirteenth centuries under the Song dynasty (960–1279), when they traded at ports in Korea, Vietnam, Taiwan, and Indonesia.²⁴ During the late period of the Ming dynasty (1368–1644), the Hokkien merchants also traded on Kyushu Island of Japan (at the ports of Hirado and Nagasaki). Hokkiens did

not simply enter and leave the port cities across East and Southeast Asia. Among them were sojourning communities, those who migrated with the intent of returning to their native land.²⁵ These sojourning communities were established in various regions where the merchants engaged in maritime activity.

In the second half of the sixteenth century, the Hokkien merchants, who sailed large ships called junks laden with Chinese goods, increased their trade in the Philippines, one of their trading destinations since at least the Song dynasty.²⁶ When the news about the abundance of American silver brought over by the Spaniards became known to the Hokkiens, they began to exchange highly coveted export goods such as porcelain and silk for the metal.

Silver became the linchpin of the Manila-Acapulco trade, an important factor in the formation of ivory carving in the Philippines. This trade involving silver, which had already become a common medium of exchange in China by this point, was deeply related to the changing state of affairs under the Ming.²⁷ With the growing threats from the Mongols at the northern border and devastating mismanagement of public funds in the fifteenth century, the Ming government began to prioritize the needs of the state and imposed a fixed quota of tax in the form of silver, commuted from grain, to cover its military expenses at the turn of the sixteenth century.²⁸ This silver tax went to the imperial storehouse complex for keeping gold, silver, and other luxury items belonging to the emperor, blurring the distinction between private imperial possessions and public finances.²⁹ At a more regional level, this fiscal policy aggravated the financial circumstances in the mountainous territory of Fujian and other southern coastal provinces, which had little land available for agricultural use to support their growing populations and depended on illegal private seaborne trade for survival.³⁰ Silver was not readily available to the locals of Fujian to meet the fixed tax quota, and thereby it was in great demand. For this reason, by midcentury officials and local elites of coastal China pressured the central government and succeeded in lifting a century-long foreign trade ban in 1567.³¹ The Spaniards' arrival in the Philippines in the 1560s thus presented a timely opportunity for the Hokkien merchants (and, by extension, local officials), as they brought with them abundant stocks of silver from the American mines of Potosí and Zacatecas, which could then be used for their mercantile business and to pay taxes.³²

It is important to note that the Spaniards had no prior knowledge of the China junk trade in Southeast Asia. Shortly after they first arrived in 1565 on the island of Cebu, located in the central part of the Philippine archipelago called the Visayas, the Spaniards were approached by merchants from Luzon, the island on which Manila is located, for permission to trade with them in order to obtain silver, which the Chinese greatly needed.³³ In the early years of the Spanish settlement in the Philippines, Luzon merchants mediated the trade between the Spaniards and the Hokkien merchants. Contrary to the Spaniards' expectations, the Philippine Islands did not have spices and yielded them little profit. Miguel López de Legazpi (1502–1572), who led the first expedition to the islands from Mexico, realized that trading with China, of which he was previously unaware, was crucial for the success of the Spanish colony in the Philippines.³⁴ Thus, it was local knowledge of the China trade from which the possibilities of colonization on the other side of the Pacific were formed.³⁵

To bypass the local merchants and trade directly with China, the Spaniards headed north to Manila in 1570. This stimulated even further the Hokkiens' mercantile activity and presence in that city through increased junk trade.³⁶ Between 1571, at the time of the Spanish settlement in Manila, and the mid-1640s, a tumultuous period in China due to a civil war and transition of power from the Ming to Qing government, the number of Hokkien junks that arrived in Manila averaged between twenty and forty each year.³⁷ The mutual need of the Spaniards and the Chinese resulted in a momentous practice effectuated in the last

few decades of the sixteenth century: the establishment of a yearly transpacific trade route between the Philippines and Mexico via the galleons. The Hokkien merchants brought Chinese silk, porcelain, and other goods to Manila in exchange for silver and cash crops, such as yam, corn, and tobacco, from the Americas.³⁸ As knowledge of the lucrative Manila-Acapulco trade disseminated, ships from other parts of Asia started to dock at the port of Manila in the 1580s.³⁹ Consequently, the colonial Philippine city transformed into a global emporium that attracted remarkably diverse kinds of people, including Portuguese, Italians, Dutch, Indigenous Mexicans, Japanese, Javanese, and Chinese, as a Spanish friar named Fray Juan de Cobo noted in 1589.⁴⁰

With the conquest of Manila in 1571, the Spanish colonists, missionaries, and merchants needed a workforce to erect a fortified commune for themselves, called Intramuros, and to provide them with daily necessities and all kinds of services. Their needs enabled the Hokkien merchants and sojourners to weave themselves firmly into the nascent social fabric of the colonial city, fulfilling various roles in the political and social hierarchy. These roles included a governor, or *capitán*, who was an intermediary between the Chinese and the Spanish colonial government; rich junk traders called *anays* from the coastal town of Anhui in Fujian who brought cargoes of coveted Chinese goods; sojourning merchants who sold Chinese goods for silver and procured local products; occupational guilds, or *gremios*, which merchants, craftsmen, and contractors appointed by the Spaniards headed; and laborers.⁴¹

Manila was located only ten days' voyage from south Fujian, and its proximity to the Chinese province also facilitated the merchant and nonmerchant Hokkiens' migration via the junks departed for the colonial city. The number of Hokkien migrants, who were exclusively male, grew remarkably within the first two decades of the Spanish settlement, from about 40 in 1570 (when Legazpi first arrived there), to 150 in 1572, to more than 10,000 in 1588.⁴² To contain the quickly growing Chinese community, the colonial government in Manila established as early as 1581 a quarter they called the Parián, to set apart the unconverted Chinese from the Christian Chinese, who resided on the other side of the Pasig River running through Manila.⁴³ The Parián was located just outside the Intramuros, from which cannons facing the Chinese quarter were set in place in case of insurrection. By the turn of the seventeenth century, the Hokkien merchants and migrants established in Manila the largest Chinese community outside mainland China. The Hokkien population peaked in 1603, estimated at somewhere between 24,000 and 30,000, dwarfing the Spanish community of about 700.⁴⁴ Outnumbering the Spaniards by the tens of thousands, the Chinese dominated the colonial market, rising as *the* suppliers for virtually every aspect of trade and service to the Spaniards in the Philippines. It was in the Parián (meaning "silk market") that the Hokkiens conducted trade and set up workshops of all kinds. It was where everything from luxury items, including carved ivories, to daily necessities, such as shoes and furniture, and services, including carpentry, baking, tailoring, was made, offered, and sold. Antonio de Morga, who served as lieutenant governor and judge (*oidor*) of the *audiencia* (the highest tribunal of justice in a Spanish colony) in Manila from 1595 to 1603, commented that "without these Sangleys the city could not continue nor be maintained."⁴⁵

CARVING OUT AN OCCUPATIONAL NICHE

Given the size of their population and their indispensable roles in the transpacific galleon trade and in the upkeep of the Spanish settlement, the Hokkiens dominated Manila. In this colonial city, as I will show below, ivory carving became a viable niche in the Philippine economy. It was made possible by a Chinese family system built on the principle that the family

property remains intact despite the diffusion of its members.⁴⁶ This meant that the export of labor by way of migration necessitated some levels of financial contribution to the family back home, with an assurance that one's share in the estate would not be reduced.⁴⁷ Such mutual aid and security was thus provided through kinship, which undergirded cohesion among family members remaining at home and sojourning abroad.

Community building and cohesion overseas were further strengthened by a shared dialect spoken among those who originated from the same region.⁴⁸ A common local language was a powerful resource for creating a polity in nonnative locations like the Spanish Philippines, essentially reducing competition from other dialect groups.⁴⁹ Hokkiens, who are one of coastal Fujian's five dialect groups based in the prefectures of Zhangzhou and Quanzhou and the port city of Xiamen (Amoy), built a robust migrant community in colonial Manila interlinked by shared bonds over native place, kinship, and dialect. This form of migration and resultant settlement in the Philippines left little room for other dialect groups from Fujian to penetrate the society of colonial Manila.

However, driving out other dialect groups was not enough. To sustain themselves in Manila, the Hokkien migrants devised adaptive kinships and other social practices. Lucille Chia's study of Chinese bakers, butchers, and carpenters in the Spanish Philippines can illuminate the ways in which ivory carvers may have secured themselves in the economy of colonial Manila. Providing daily necessities to the Spaniards, the migrants adopted the Catholic customs of coparenthood (*compadrazgo*) and godparenthood (*padrinazgo*), while continuing their tradition of hiring nonfamily members from their native towns in Fujian to help run their businesses in Manila and entering into sworn brotherhoods.⁵⁰ These poor Chinese migrants forged networks and linked communities in China to Manila to fill particular niches in the economy of the Spanish Philippines.⁵¹ In carving out niches based on occupational specialty, they provided services needed by the Spaniards that could not be met by the Indigenous population, at least during the early period of the settlement.⁵² These adaptive practices, crucial for the migrants' survival in Manila, also rendered the migrants less vulnerable to the expulsions and massacres that occurred periodically throughout the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries.⁵³

If this was also the case for ivory carvers, filling a specific niche of ivory carving in the Filipino and transpacific markets would have served as a mechanism of survival and sustenance. As much as the Chinese were vulnerable to expulsions and massacres, they reaped the benefits of the Spaniards' very need to procure carved ivory sculptures to furnish churches in the Philippines and for export across the Pacific Ocean. Not all ivory carvers would have had prior experience in the craft, however. Farmers who particularly had been unable to secure themselves in the local economy of Fujian were eventually displaced and, during the process of migration, took up other industries, including ivory carving.⁵⁴ Salazar's letter seems to reflect this reality: "What arouses my wonder most is, that when I arrived [they did not know] how to paint anything."⁵⁵ Furthermore, by engaging in the same industry among their kinsmen, the migrant ivory carvers would have given each other moral support in the face of constant suspicion and hostility in Spanish Manila, helped the remaining families in Fujian financially, and encouraged others back home to follow in their footsteps and migrate.⁵⁶

Occupational niches like ivory carving, which had been practiced in China for centuries, were a key element in the survival and sustenance of Chinese migration in general. As has already been demonstrated elsewhere, elephant ivory carving was a specialty of Zhangzhou Prefecture in late sixteenth- and seventeenth-century Fujian.⁵⁷ However, elephant tusks were not the only materials carved in China. If we take Craig Clunas's point that the Chinese (presumably, including those in and from Zhangzhou) also produced extremely fine,

delicate carvings across other materials, such as wood, bamboo, rhinoceros horn, and soapstone, then why did only elephant ivory carving become an occupational niche in colonial Manila?⁵⁸

I suggest at least three factors that conditioned the formation of ivory carving as a viable niche in the Spanish Philippines. One concerns the availability of raw materials.⁵⁹ By the sixteenth century, elephants living inland and along the Swahili Coast of Africa were hunted and their tusks were exported to India, whence those tusks were reexported to Southeast Asia, including Melaka, Indonesia, China, and the Philippines.⁶⁰ At the same time, Asian elephant tusks harvested in India, Thailand, Cambodia, and Sumatra also supplied the Southeast Asian market. While quantifying the amount of ivory in circulation in Southeast Asia during the late sixteenth and seventeenth centuries may not be feasible, the material's reputation as rare and precious across many cultures laid a foundation for the development of an industry in colonial Manila.

The need of Spanish colonists, merchants, and missionaries was another likely factor that contributed to shaping ivory carving as a niche economy in the Philippines. For the success of their settlement, the Spanish engaged in the transpacific galleon trade, which was facilitated by trading with China. The transpacific trade generated the largest revenue for the Spaniards, despite the regulations and subsequent prohibitions from the Crown in Spain.⁶¹ Through the galleon trade, ivory sculptures made in Asia furnished numerous churches in the Americas and likely supplied wealthy private collections with luxury objects.

A third factor may have been the potential of ivory sculptures for fabrication after they were exported. Some extant sculptures of holy figures dated to the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries display intricate patterns on their garments, often repeating at regular intervals, that recall those found on ceramic wares and tiles produced in Puebla, Mexico.⁶² These patterns indicate that some worked ivories might have been painted in New Spain. If we draw insight from numerous permutations of Netherlandish wood altarpieces created for the open market, might possibilities of fabrication have rendered ivories attractive to potential buyers?⁶³

CRAFTING IVORIES AND COMPETITION IN SOUTHEAST ASIA

If we can establish that ivory carving was an occupational niche in the Spanish Philippine economy, we then need to consider how the carvers produced ivories that appealed locally and globally. That missionaries of the mendicant and Jesuit orders traveling from Habsburg Spain via the Americas involved themselves in the production of Christian art in the Philippines is rooted in both textual and material sources. Spanish accounts such as that of the Jesuit friar Pedro Chirino (1557–1635) explicitly allude to a high-level role for missionaries in this production. In speaking of Antonio Sedeño, a prominent Jesuit in the Philippines from 1581 until his death in 1595, Chirino related that “[he] sought out Chinese painters and kept them in his house painting images, not only for our own churches but for the others in Manila and outside the city.”⁶⁴

Prints and wooden sculptures by European artists working in the Habsburg domain have been considered key sources of artistic transmission in the Philippines. Prominent among these are the book illustrations and individual prints, as well as copies of their printed images, by the Wierix brothers, a Flemish family of engravers, draftsmen, and printers. The Jesuits in Asia used a large number of their products, including the richly illustrated *Evangelicae historiae imagines*, which was written by the Spanish Jesuit Jerónimo Nadal and published in 1593.⁶⁵ In addition, wooden devotional sculptures produced in Mechelen, Brussels, and Antwerp (often called *Mechelse popjes*, *poupées de Malines*, or *jezusbeeldje*) sold



5 *Poupées de Malines, Enfant Jesus*, Flemish, 16th century, polychrome wood. M Leuven, Leuven, Belgium (artwork in the public domain; photograph © Dirk Pauwels)

at a flourishing open market in the Netherlands are possible candidates.⁶⁶ Statuettes of the Christ child were especially popular, being exported from Antwerp to Spain, Portugal, and the Americas by the mid-sixteenth century (Fig. 5).⁶⁷ Another frequently referenced source is wooden polychrome sculptures of the Christ child by or after Juan Martínez Montañés (1568–1649) from the beginning of the seventeenth century (see Fig. 8).⁶⁸ It is known that sculptures by or after Montañés, like the *Mechelse popjes*, were in New Spain and Peru.⁶⁹ Whether or not these sculptures had actually crossed the Pacific sometime after they reached the Americas cannot be ascertained, but their resemblance to Southeast Asian ivories suggests the likelihood of their presence in the Philippines.

As an example, juxtaposing a seventeenth-century Southeast Asian ivory of the Christ child (Fig. 6), a print by Hieronymus Wierix (1553–1619; Fig. 7), and a sculpture by or after Montañés (Fig. 8) illuminates that Southeast Asian ivories exhibit selective elements of the European models. Guided by the shape of ivory and the material disposition of wood, the two sculpted figures are standing more upright than the engraved figure marked by its exaggerated contrapposto form. The Southeast Asian ivory figure is shown raising only the lower half of his right arm in a gesture of blessing, while his left arm is bent at a ninety-degree angle, a posture identical to that of the wooden sculpture and not the print. At the same time, the left hand of the ivory Christ child is open slightly to hold a standard, a gesture replicated in the engraving. The folds of the skin appear in nearly identical areas along the tubby legs of the sculpted works of the infant Christ, and both figures have a plumper abdomen than seen in the defined, muscular torso of the engraved figure. The ivory and engraved works depict Christ's hair as ample, with small curls remaining close to his head. In other words, Chinese migrant ivory carvers likely conceived their sculptures by appropriating different elements of the European models available to them.

By the time European objects such as the Wierix prints and Flemish or Spanish wooden sculptures traveled across both the Atlantic and the Pacific, eventually reaching the Philippines,



6 *Christ Child, Savior of the World*, Hispano-Filipino (Southeast Asian), 17th century, polychrome ivory, height 21 $\frac{7}{8}$ in. (55.5 cm). Private collection (artwork in the public domain; photograph provided by the Museo de Historia Mexicana, Monterrey, Mexico)



7 Hieronymus Wierix, *The Resurrected Infant Christ Triumphant over Evil and Death*, detail, before 1619, engraving. British Museum, London (artwork in the public domain; photograph © The Trustees of the British Museum)

8 Juan Martínez Montañés, *The Infant Christ*, ca. 1600–1606, polychrome wood, figure height 27 in. (68.6 cm). Toledo Museum of Art, Toledo, Ohio, purchased with funds from the Libbey Endowment, gift of Edward Drummond Libbey (artwork in the public domain; published under fair use)



the original contexts in which they were created had little relevance for the ivory carvers in Manila, who worked under different conditions and with concerns, interests, and aspirations of their own.⁷⁰ It is this geographic, temporal, and cultural distance that, almost paradoxically, allowed the ivory carvers to interpret the European models as they saw fit.⁷¹ At the same time, as historians have already demonstrated, this distance posed significant challenges to Spanish ambitions for the political and spiritual conquest of the Philippine Islands.⁷² Essentially a viceroyalty of another viceroyalty (that is, New Spain), the Philippine Islands were geographically far too removed from Spain to ensure the enforcement of regulations, prohibitions, or decrees from the Crown. And, as we have seen earlier, the success of the Spanish settlement there was critically dependent on trade with China and the Hokkien migrants and merchants in Manila.

Imagery such as the infant or crucified Christ with which the Chinese migrants were presented to carve ivories radically departs from the subjects often represented in Chinese art, as well as from the carving tradition in China in general. Figural carving in ivory long predated the lifting of the foreign trade ban in China in 1567. This rare material had been used to produce images of immortals, gods, and other figures before the thirteenth or fourteenth century.⁷³ However, in Chinese ivory carving, every figure, male or female, is fully clothed. I do not know of any Chinese ivories that present a figure nearly nude until the very end of the sixteenth century.⁷⁴ Images of suffering and torture, such as the Crucifixion, were never represented in carvings for the domestic market. Moreover, unlike European examples, which are partially or entirely unpainted, Chinese ivories are usually polychromed, lacquered, or stained to appear in shades of brown, red, green, and black.⁷⁵

Especially during the earliest decades of ivory carving in Southeast Asia for the Spaniards, these Christian ivory carvings would have startled the Chinese. A late sixteenth-century account by Gao Lian, a merchant-dramatist from Hangzhou in Zhejiang Province, expressed his ambivalent sentiment toward ivory figurines in the preface to his 1591 publication *Eight Treatises on the Nurturing of Life*: “In Fujian ivory is carved into human

form, the workmanship of which is fine and artful; however, one cannot put them anywhere, or give them as a decent present.”⁷⁶

As trade with the Spanish Philippines continued, these sentiments seemed to have changed. A gazetteer dated 1628 for Fujian’s Zhangzhou Prefecture indicates that ivory carving had become a prized industry in the province by the early seventeenth century:⁷⁷

Ivory carving: elephant ivory can no longer be found in the prefecture, and is wholly traded by those who come into the port markets. Zhang[zhou] people carve it into immortals and that sort of thing, supplying them for the purpose of providing pleasure. Their ears, eyes, limbs and torso are all lifelike. Exceptionally skillful work comes from Haicheng [a district in Zhangzhou].⁷⁸

It is unclear if the ivory carving described here specifically refers to the industry destined for the domestic or foreign market, or even both. Nevertheless, the gazetteer calls attention to the high quality of ivory figures and their naturalism, while implying that these ivories depart from the traditional aesthetics of Chinese figurative art.

In this context, a print entitled *Christ on the Cross*, after Antonius II Wierix (ca. 1555–1604), is especially intriguing for Southeast Asian ivories depicting the crucified Christ (Fig. 9). Christ is pictured here wearing a loincloth that has an extra fold of garment covering his groin. A peculiar construction of Christ’s loincloth found in the Wierix print—the knotted and loose fabric at his proper right and left, as well as the remaining fabric emerging from the bottom to further cover his groin—is remarkably similar to that of the Harvard ivory (Fig. 10). Among several versions of Christ’s loincloth in colonial Asian ivories, this particular design of the fabric is unique to those securely identified as Southeast Asian. None of the ivories of the crucified Christ made in India or Sri Lanka shows a cloth swathing the area around the hip in this fashion.

This choice of a model would not have been made arbitrarily. In his *Labor evangelica*, published posthumously in 1663, Francisco Colín (1592–1660), a Jesuit rector in Manila, describes native men’s clothing in the Philippines.⁷⁹ Interestingly, Colín’s account of the men’s breeches approaches the construction of the Harvard ivory’s loincloth: “For breeches they wore a richly colored cloth, which was generally edged with

gold, about the waist and brought up between the legs, so that the legs were decently covered to the middle of the thigh; from there down feet and legs were bare.”⁸⁰ Marilyn Canta, in her survey of sartorial terms used historically in the Philippines that may indicate influence from India, suggested that these breeches might have been worn like the dhoti, a loincloth worn by Hindu men across all strata in the Indian caste system.⁸¹ However, neither Colín’s description of Filipino men’s breeches nor the way in which the dhoti has been worn in India features the



9 After Antonius II Wierix, *Christ on the Cross*, before 1604, engraving, 9¼ × 6¾ in. (23.2 × 17.3 cm). Metropolitan Museum of Art, New York, Harris Brisbane Dick Fund, 1953 (artwork in the public domain; photograph all rights reserved, The Metropolitan Museum of Art)

knotted and loose parts of Christ's loincloth attached to either side of his waist, which leads me to postulate that the Wierix print would have been used as a model for carving ivories of the crucified Christ. Nonetheless, given the strong resemblance of the ivory's loincloth to the breeches worn by native Filipino men in Manila (and elsewhere in the Philippines), it does not seem improbable that Chinese carvers would have made these connections and incorporated the design with which they were more familiar, particularly during the early decades of ivory carving.⁸²

Furthermore, the Hokkiens' deep ties to maritime activity shaped ivory carving in colonial Manila. A petition to postpone an expulsion order from the Spanish authorities in 1686 provides an insight into how the Chinese migrant carvers in Manila perceived themselves.⁸³ The petitioners signed as heads of businesses or shops in the Parián based on a type of trade, product, or services of their specialty, such as "satin shop," "silversmith," and "hat store."⁸⁴ What is striking about these signatories is that they were *merchants*, not artisans. This practice of merchants heading business operations in Manila likely originated in China

in the previous century. Starting from about the 1550s, merchants in China took up the responsibility of managing, marketing, and distributing manufactured products as the Chinese government began to loosen its controls on craft production.⁸⁵ This transfer of responsibility from officials to merchants led to the changing perceptions of the latter, as the literati began to engage in commerce for more profit and merchants forged robust relations with the literati for social ascendancy.⁸⁶ In this capacity, the Hokkien merchants working in Manila, a global entrepôt that served as the initial landing point in Asia for



10 *Crucified Christ* (Fig. 1), detail of the loincloth. Harvard Art Museums/Fogg Museum, Bequest of Grenville L. Winthrop, 1943.1082 (artwork in the public domain; photograph © President and Fellows of Harvard College, provided by Straus Center for Conservation and Technical Studies)

objects from around the world, would have received firsthand knowledge of the needs and tastes of their consumers in the Americas and beyond. Under the purview of these well-informed merchants, Chinese migrant carvers in Manila would thus have employed resourceful strategies with the aim of enhancing the marketability of ivories for consumers in the Philippines and across the Pacific. A further examination of the Harvard ivory Christ reveals a few of these strategies.

A notable feature of the Harvard ivory is its sheen. When illuminated, the surface of the Harvard sculpture reflects light brightly (Fig. 11). Its remarkably polished surface defies the usual soft and fine-grained appearance of an ivory sculpture. Rather than an exception,



11 *Crucified Christ* (Fig. 1), detail, Harvard Art Museums/Fogg Museum, Bequest of Grenville L. Winthrop, 1943.1082 (artwork in the public domain; photograph by the author)



12 *Christ Child, Savior of the World* (Fig. 6), detail. Private collection (artwork in the public domain; photograph by the author)

such extreme glossiness is a common characteristic of Southeast Asian ivories (Fig. 12).⁸⁷ How such sheen was achieved is not yet understood; a coat of wax may have been applied to the surface.⁸⁸ Another possibility is readily available materials in Manila such as fish scales or pumice from volcanoes located throughout the Philippine Islands that may have been used to polish the ivories for a finishing touch.⁸⁹

This glossy surface of the ivory strongly recalls that of Chinese porcelain, a highly coveted export product in Europe and New Spain, especially since the early sixteenth century. The production of renowned blue-and-white porcelains produced in Jingdezhen in Jiangxi Province of southern China became even more vitalized by the Manila-Acapulco trade (Fig. 13). With the establishment of the transpacific trade in the late sixteenth century, other types of export porcelains also emerged on the market. Made in the aforementioned Zhangzhou Prefecture, which was known for ivory carving, porcelains erroneously called Swatow wares (after the name of a port in Guangdong Province adjacent to Fujian) were produced specifically for export. Also in Fujian, kilns in Dehua County produced porcelains of a white creamy body known as *blanc de chine* (Fig. 14).⁹⁰ These several types of porcelains were shipped not only to Japan, Java, and Sulawesi but also to the Philippines for export to New Spain and Europe.⁹¹ Informed by merchants of the high demand for Chinese porcelain in the transpacific market, the Hokkien ivory carvers may well have produced sculptures that were polished to imitate the translucent, vitreous surface of porcelain.

Evoking the surface of another object had been integral to the production of luxury goods in China for centuries. Already since the Song dynasty (960–1279), objects in some materials were created to resemble other objects in different materials.⁹² This practice reached new heights during the late Ming and Qing dynasties of the mid-sixteenth through the eighteenth centuries, when sophistication and novelty of style were valued. Also during this period, foreign trade contributed to a significant rise in the competitive production of luxury goods for domestic and export markets.⁹³ Luxury goods from the Ming and Qing periods for the domestic market were created to evoke decorative surfaces of other objects. For example, a cup intricately carved in dark, tropical hardwood called *chenxiang* (Fig. 15)⁹⁴ strongly recalls another



13 Plate with geese in a lotus pond, Chinese, late 16th–early 17th century, Ming dynasty (1368–1644), Wanli period (1573–1620), porcelain painted with cobalt blue under transparent glaze (Jingdezhen ware), diameter 14¼ in. (36.2 cm). Metropolitan Museum of Art, New York, Rogers Fund, 1916 (artwork in the public domain; photograph all rights reserved, The Metropolitan Museum of Art)

14 Bodhisattva Guanyin, Chinese, 17th century, late Ming (1368–1644)–early Qing (1644–1911) dynasty, porcelain with ivory glaze (Dehua ware), height 16¼ in. (41.3 cm). Metropolitan Museum of Art, New York, Bequest of Mary Clark Thompson, 1923 (artwork in the public domain; photograph all rights reserved, The Metropolitan Museum of Art)

15 Cup with figures in a landscape, Chinese, 16th–17th century, Ming dynasty (1368–1644), *chenxiang* wood, height 2½ in. (6.7 cm). Metropolitan Museum of Art, New York, Gift of Alan and Simone Hartman, 1981 (artwork in the public domain; photograph © The Metropolitan Museum of Art, provided by Art Resource, NY)



made of stained and polished rhinoceros horn by virtue of its conical shape and grained texture. Though objects of less expensive materials mimicked the surfaces of objects made of more expensive materials, the cross-referencing of other materials also went in the other direction.⁵⁵ Therefore, in Jonathan Hay’s words, “the play of resonance *itself* was productive of value” in China, and an object is “more than what it initially appears to be.”⁵⁶

I would argue that such evocation of another material served as a particularly salient ingredient for increasing the desirability of Southeast Asian ivories

for the transpacific market. In Manila, where numerous types of Asian goods flooded in for export to the Americas and beyond, the ivories’ sheen comparable to that of Chinese porcelain would have signified the sculptures’ origin, China, and its extended community in the Philippines. In other words, the glossiness of Chinese ceramics was integral to the popularity and broad appeal of Southeast Asian ivories and to the making of a global commodity.

Another strategy employed in the production of ivories can be identified in the painted and gilded decorations on the loincloth of the Harvard Christ (see Fig. 10). The cloth bears geometric and vegetal patterns on the inner and outer sides of the fabric, respectively. The inner side features rows of beads running parallel to pairs of thick and thin straight lines,

while intertwined vines and blooming flowers are shown on the outer side. A similar combination of patterns can be found in a figure of the Virgin of the Immaculate Conception (Fig. 16).⁹⁷ The inner side of a mantle worn by the Virgin also bears the pattern of each row of beads alternating with two straight lines, and her dress is adorned with floral sprays appearing at regular intervals. Rendering both sides of a garment with two different kinds of patterns is likely intended to convey a sense of movement in the otherwise static posture of the crucified Christ or standing Virgin.⁹⁸ It animates not just the surface but also the composition.

These decorative patterns were inspired by other goods that had been in circulation in Southeast Asia since at least the ninth century: Indian export cotton textiles. Particularly the western coast of Gujarat and the southeastern region of the Coromandel Coast of the Indian subcontinent supplied most of the patterned cotton textiles for the Southeast Asian market.⁹⁹ The patterns on the Harvard ivory closely resemble those on large block-printed Gujarati export textiles from the fifteenth through the mid-seventeenth centuries, including two examples made for Sulawesi in present-day eastern Indonesia (Figs. 17, 18).¹⁰⁰ Likely intended for a ceremonial purpose, these sumptuous cloths depict a festive scene with figures dressed in various types of patterned garments dancing or playing musical instruments.¹⁰¹ One of the dancers represented on the textile in the TAPI Collection wears a sari adorned with motifs of beads running parallel to each set of two vertical lines (see Fig. 18), identical to the geometric patterns on the loincloth of the Harvard ivory Christ.¹⁰² In a textile in the Karun Collection (Fig. 19), dancers are surrounded by flowering bushes, which also appear on the Harvard ivory (Fig. 20).

In the scholarship on Indian cotton textiles, the exportation of these goods is often discussed in relation to consumption in the Indonesian islands. However, Indian textiles also reached the colonial Philippines by the end of the sixteenth century. Archival records substantiate the presence of Indian textiles on the Philippine Islands intended for consumption there and for export to New Spain. These include chintz for printed and painted cotton cloths, *patola* for double ikat–patterned silk and cotton cloths, and *salampores* for plain-weave cotton cloth of varying quality.¹⁰³ In addition, an inventory drafted about 1598 itemizing the confiscated property of a Portuguese-born *cristão-novo* (New Christian, or forcibly converted Jew) merchant in Manila corroborates the importation of Indian textiles in the colonial city.¹⁰⁴ According to this document, Diogo Fernandez Vitória (born ca. 1530), whose commercial enterprise involved direct and indirect trade with Goa, Macao, Melaka, Manila, the Maluku Islands, Japan, and Mexico, imported Indian cotton cloths made in Gujarat and Cambay via Melaka or Macao.¹⁰⁵

Indian cotton textiles could have reached Manila in the late sixteenth and early seventeenth centuries through several channels. First, the textiles would have been brought over by Hindu and Mogul merchants from Gujarat. These Indian merchants had already expanded their networks in the early sixteenth century to Southeast Asia, trading with Melaka, Manila, and the Sumatran ports of Aceh, Bantam, and Kedah.¹⁰⁶ In addition, English private traders, who sailed under the Portuguese flag, and the Portuguese merchants based in India traveling through Melaka and Brunei were involved in supplying Indian cotton cloths to Manila.¹⁰⁷ Some of these very ports were also major hubs of activity for the Hokkien merchants, with whom the Gujarati merchants competed.¹⁰⁸ Given the fact



16 *Virgin of the Immaculate Conception*, Hispano-Filipino (Southeast Asian), 17th century, polychrome ivory, height 19½ in. (49.5 cm). Private collection (artwork in the public domain; photograph provided by the Museo de Historia Mexicana, Monterrey, Mexico)



17 Ceremonial cloth, Indian (Gujarati), ca. 1450–1650, block-printed cotton, 11 ft. 8 in. × 3 ft. 4 in. (3.6 × 1.02 m). Karun Collection, London (artwork in the public domain; photograph provided by Karun Collection, London)

18 Ceremonial cloth, Indian (Gujarati), detail of a female dancer, ca. 1500–1550, block-printed cotton. TAPI Collection, Surat, India (artwork in the public domain; photograph provided by TAPI Collection of Shilpa & Praful Shah)

19 Ceremonial cloth, Indian (Gujarati) (Fig. 17), detail. Karun Collection, London (artwork in the public domain; photograph provided by Karun Collection, London)

20 *Crucified Christ* (Fig. 1), detail of loincloth, proper left side. Harvard Art Museums/Fogg Museum, Bequest of Grenville L. Winthrop, 1943.1082 (artwork in the public domain; photograph © President and Fellows of Harvard College, provided by Straus Center for Conservation and Technical Studies)



that the Hokkien merchants' networks between Indonesia, Manila, and other regions of Southeast Asia frequently overlapped, it is reasonable to deduce Chinese involvement in reexporting Indian cotton cloths they acquired in other parts of Southeast Asia to Manila.¹⁰⁹

The reasons for referencing Indian cotton cloth in the context of the ivories are multiple. Indian cotton textiles were prized for the mastery with which they were produced, from the fineness of the weave to the brilliance and fastness of color and the variety of designs.¹¹⁰ Thus, they had long been highly valued objects in Southeast Asia, associated with prestige, power, and status.¹¹¹ Moreover, Indian cotton textiles constituted the most widely accepted medium of exchange in Southeast Asia, critical for acquiring cloves, nutmeg, pepper, mace, and sandalwood, the very kinds of goods that Europeans also greatly coveted.¹¹²

Furthermore, they were the very type of goods that had stimulated the ivory trade between Africa and Asia. Elephant tusks from Africa had already been exported to India and China for centuries, but by the time commercial exchanges were firmly established between Gujarat and the Swahili Coast in the late fifteenth century, Gujarati merchants were trading

Indian cloths with East Africa, where they were consumed in large quantity, for African ivory.¹¹³ After African ivories were exchanged by Indian merchants for cloths, they reached western India, whence they were reexported to China.

Finally, the patterns adapted from Indian textiles amplify a sense of the Southeast Asian ivories' exoticism. Despite mentions of Indian cottons in early seventeenth-century sources such as Morga's *Sucesos de las Islas Filipinas*, the scarcity of extant Indian textiles in the Americas from this early period makes it challenging to ascertain the extent to which Indian textiles were present in New Spain during this period.¹¹⁴ If Indian cottons were relatively little known in New Spain at this point, the patterns on the ivories would have indicated the distant, Asian origins of the sculptures.

What tangible outcomes, then, were generated from employing these strategies to enhance the marketability of ivories? It is necessary to revisit Salazar's remarks about the ivories made in colonial Manila. At a glance, Salazar's description of ivories as "likenesses of the sculptures that come from Spain" seems to temper his glowing assessment of them: they are a "marvelous work with both the brush and the chisel"; moreover, "nothing more perfect could be produced than some of their [ivory] statues of the Child Jesus which I have seen." However, when Salazar made this remark about the ivory statues in the Philippines, he mentioned them in the context of an intense competition in Manila, particularly centered around the Chinese quarter. In his extended letter to Philip II, the Dominican bishop devoted much attention to describing the ivories with regard to the commercial activities in the Parián. Salazar highlighted a few kinds of services, including gold- and silversmithing, embroidery production, bookbinding, gardening, and construction, as well as shops such as apothecaries, butcher shops, and bakeries, all of which were provided and operated by the Chinese.¹¹⁵ Salazar repeatedly reminds the reader of two aspects of these services, shops, and the goods that the Chinese offered in the Parián. First, they were very affordable; he used expressions such as "cheaply" or "at a very low cost" at least five times in his description of the market.¹¹⁶ Second, he reports that the excellent workmanship of the Chinese drove out the Spaniards who had engaged in the same occupation: "[The] handicrafts pursued by Spaniards have all died out."¹¹⁷ These remarks intimate the economic and social landscape of colonial Manila fundamentally shaped by competition between the Spaniards from New Spain and the Chinese population from Fujian Province, and, by extension, between Europe and Asia.

This competition of religious images halfway around the globe is in keeping with a contemporaneous phenomenon concerning silk trade across the Atlantic and the Pacific as early as the 1580s. Although the Spanish colonists in Manila complained to the Crown in Spain regarding Mexican merchants coming to the Philippines and driving up the prices of Chinese raw and woven silk, the active Chinese silk trade between Southeast Asia and New Spain posed a serious threat to Seville, which had previously supplied silk goods to the Americas.¹¹⁸ Even with the sharp rise in the price of Chinese silk, the Spanish goods were still significantly more expensive than the Chinese ones. Due to distance and lack of oversight, regulations of the silk trade issued by the Crown to control the flow of Chinese goods to Mexico proved ineffectual. As a result, Spanish silk could no longer compete in the American market, leading to the decline of the silk industry in Spain. Whether silk or religious ivories, Southeast Asian products dominated Spanish territories in Asia and Mexico already by the late sixteenth century.

Produced through resourceful strategies from the knowledge of objects and ideas circulating in Southeast Asia, the colonial ivories quickly emerged as a visually potent and highly attractive commodity in the local and global markets. When Salazar foresaw that "before long we will not need the sculptures made in Flanders," it was not because of the

ivories' "likeness" to European objects. Rather, it was because they effectively outcompeted images from Europe that had previously functioned as instruments of conversion and devotion and as artistic models. In other words, Southeast Asian ivories, for a variety of reasons, were preferred over European ones in the Spanish colonies on both sides of the Pacific.¹¹⁹

LOCAL AFFAIRS, GLOBAL IMPACT

As we have seen, ivories from southeast China and the Spanish Philippines developed amid an intricate web of local conditions, economic and social ambitions, and maritime crossings in Southeast Asia. On a macro level, the Ming government had an urgent need for silver, which was supplied in part by trade with the Spanish Philippines. On a micro level, the growing population, shortage of land for agricultural use, and increasing power of rich merchant families in Fujian left farmers, craftsmen, and those with poor lineages without the resources to survive. The Spaniards' settlement in the Philippines thus afforded new opportunities for the Hokkiens in coastal Fujian to leverage their expertise in maritime commerce. It also encouraged poor merchants and nonmerchants to migrate to the Philippine Islands, with the intent of assisting their families back home, and stimulated other family kinsmen to join the migration.

Conversely, the Hokkien migration was equally crucial for the Spanish colonization of the Philippines, the success of which was dependent on the transpacific galleon trade, as well as the services and goods provided by the Chinese population. Such mutual interests between the Spaniards and the Hokkiens were met in Manila, which quickly emerged as a global entrepôt that connected Asia to New Spain, and even further to Europe. Hokkien migrants, to ensure their survival and increase their economic and social power, carved out occupational niches in colonial Manila. Ivory carving particularly flourished in Manila because of the availability of imported elephant tusks, the economic needs of the Spanish missionaries who invested in the galleon trade, and its potential for further fabrication after reaching New Spain. European sources in the form of prints or wooden sculptures would have initially served as models for the Hokkien carvers as well as tools for evangelism in the Philippines.

As a result of trade and migration in Southeast Asia, through which objects, people, and ideas were constantly on the move, the niche economy drove out competition from Habsburg Spain and its other territories, such as the Southern Netherlands. Likely informed by merchants from Fujian, who developed firsthand knowledge of consumer tastes in Asia and across the Pacific, Hokkien migrant carvers employed strategies that involved referencing prized Asian export goods that flowed into Manila. In making products of global appeal, the carvers created a singular aesthetic with which they imbued Southeast Asian ivories for potent visual impact. Accordingly, the ivories claimed their authoritative status as preferred religious objects in both Southeast Asia and New Spain.

Within only two decades from the Spanish settlement in 1571, Manila evolved from a westward terminus of European religious imagery from Spain to a chief purveyor of ivories to the Philippine Islands. As some Southeast Asian ivories traveled eastward across the Pacific to New Spain, and eventually to Europe, the direction of transmission was essentially reversed. From the vantage point of Salazar's Manila, where the Hokkien migrant community dominated its social, political, and economic landscape, this global appeal of Southeast Asian ivories was rooted not so much in the wide reach of European hegemony as it was in the local developments in the South China Sea.

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NOTES

This article emerged from two presentations, given at the annual meetings of the Renaissance Society of America on March 24, 2018, and the College Art Association on February 15, 2019. During my previous appointment as the Rousseau Curatorial Fellow in European art at the Harvard Art Museums, my colleagues at the museums, Harvard University, and elsewhere proved immensely supportive and assisted me greatly with research and in the preparation of the manuscript. In this regard, I thank A. Cassandra Albinson, Miriam Stewart, Ethan Lasser, Elizabeth Rudy, Melissa Moy, Rachel Parikh, Wai Yee Chiong, Oliver Wunsch, Marina Felix, Nicole Ledoux, Tony Sigel, Angela Chang, Cristina Morilla, Mauricio Benitez, Anthony Cutler, and Sarah Kozlowski. My gratitude also goes to Adam Jasienski, Anthony Cutler, Corine Schleif, Joanna Sheers Seidenstein, Kelley Helmstutler Di Dio, and the editors and anonymous reviewers for *The Art Bulletin* for their invaluable insights on various drafts of this article. Special thanks go to Barbara Watson Andaya for answering my numerous questions about trade and the European Christian mission in early modern Southeast Asia and suggesting many very helpful resources for this project. I also thank Ryan Crewe, Stephanie Porras, Julie Lauffenburger, Meha Priyadarshini, Ruth Barnes, Rui Lourido, Giorgio Riello, Kristie Flannery, Elsarís Núñez, Craig Clunas, and Lucille Chia for offering their expert knowledge on the topic.

1. Ryan Dominic Crewe, "Connecting the Indies: The Hispano-Asian Pacific World in Early Modern Global History," *Estudios históricos* 30 (2017): 20.
2. Even today they remain known as Hokkiens. See James K. Chin, "Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities: Hokkien Merchants in Early Maritime Asia," *Journal of Chinese Overseas* 6 (2010): 157–215.
3. Dagmar Schafer has noted that the development of the artisans' professional identity was significantly hindered by their ties to locality and the state of affairs in Ming China. The craft production was owned by the state, which employed the system of hereditary household registration that essentially restricted all male family members and their subsequent generations to one profession. Schafer, *The Crafting of the 10,000 Things: Knowledge and Technology in Seventeenth-Century China* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2011), 95, 107.
4. Gauvin Alexander Bailey, Jean Michel Massing, and Nuno Vassallo e Silva, *Marfins no império português / Ivories in the Portuguese Empire* (Lisbon: Scribe, 2013), 233–70, esp. 236; and Alan Chong and Pedro de Moura Carvalho, eds., *Christianity in Asia: Sacred Art and Visual Splendor* (Singapore: Asian Civilizations Museum, 2016), 204–7, esp. 206.
5. Its size and weight (measuring just over ten pounds) indicate that this ivory was carved out of at least two elephant tusks of African origin. A large tusk accounts for Christ's head, torso, legs, and feet, while another tusk was used for the figure's arms, which are attached to the body at the shoulders. Observable from the rear, this is suggested by the different colors of the arms and torso, showing an aged state of the material. There are two small pieces of raw ivory carved in the shape of knotted and loose drapes of the loincloth attached to either side of

the figure's hip. It is unclear if these pieces are sections from one of the two tusks or a third. The tusks of African elephants are the largest and heaviest kind of ivory, which can measure to just over twelve feet and had historically weighed as much as possibly 99–132 pounds. Sarah M. Guérin, "A vorio d'ogni ragione: The Supply of Elephant Ivory to Northern Europe in the Gothic Era," *Journal of Medieval History* 36 (2010): 158. See also Jeheskel Shoshani, "The African Elephant and Its Environment," in *Elephant: The Animal and Its Ivory in African Culture*, ed. Doran H. Ross (Los Angeles: Fowler Museum of Cultural History, University of California, Los Angeles, 1992), 43–47.

6. Similar painterly lines can be detected at the figure's arms, left knee, right thigh, and select areas of his face. I thank Tony Sigel and Angela Chang at the Harvard Art Museums' object conservation lab for assisting me with this technical examination.
7. I thank Anthony Cutler for examining this ivory with me at the Harvard Art Museums and offering invaluable insight on the object.
8. Margarita Mercedes Estella Marcos's earliest publications on the ivories include *Virgenes de marfil hispanofilipinas* (Madrid: Instituto Diego Velázquez, 1967); "Algunos relieves en marfil hispano-filipinos y sus posibles fuentes de inspiración," *Archivo español de arte* 43 (1970): 151–80; and *Marfiles hispano-filipinos en las colecciones particulares* (Madrid: Instituto de Cultura Hispánica, 1972).
9. Margarita Mercedes Estella Marcos, *Ivories from the Far Eastern Provinces of Spain and Portugal*, 2nd ed. (Monterrey, Mexico: Cydsa, 2010), 26.
10. See Beatriz Sanchez Navarro de Pintado, *Marfiles cristianos del Oriente en Mexico* (Mexico City: Fomento Cultural Banamex, 1986); José Manuel Casado Paramio, *Museo Oriental de Valladolid catálogo II: Marfiles hispano-filipinos* (Valladolid, Spain: Caja España, 1997); Felice Prudente Santa Maria, *Discovering Philippine Art in Spain* (Manila: Department of Foreign Affairs, 1998); María Teresa Sánchez Trujillano, *El arte hispano-filipino en la Rioja: Los marfiles* (Logroño, Spain: Museo de la Rioja, 1998); Luis Guillermo García-Saúco Beléndez, *Marfiles: Eboraria religiosa histórica en la provincia de Albacete* (Albacete, Spain: Instituto de Estudios Albacetenses de la Excma, 1999); Regalado Trota Jose and Ramon N. Villegas, *Power + Faith + Image: Philippine Art in Ivory from the 16th to 19th Century* (Makati City, Philippines: Ayala Foundation, 2004); José Roda Peña, "Un crucificado hispano-filipino de marfil en el Hospital del Pozo Santo de Sevilla," *Laboratorio de arte* 18 (2005): 319–26; Gauvin Alexander Bailey, *Art on the Jesuit Missions in Asia and Latin America, 1542–1773* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 1999); Marjorie Trusted, "Propaganda and Luxury: Small-Scale Baroque Sculptures in Viceregal America and the Philippines," in *Asia and Spanish America: Trans-Pacific Artistic and Cultural Exchange, 1500–1850; Papers of the 2006 Mayer Center Symposium at the Denver Art Museum*, ed. Donna Pierce and Ronald Otsuka (Denver: Denver Art Museum, 2009), 151–63; Nuno Vassallo e Silva, "Export Art from Portuguese India," in *Encompassing the Globe: Portugal and the World in the 16th and 17th Centuries*, ed. Jay A. Levenson (Washington, DC: Arthur M. Sackler Gallery, Smithsonian Institution,

2007), 198–209; and Bailey et al., *Marfins no império português*.

11. "Carved Ivory Crucifix," early 16th century, Winthrop Collection Index, Sculptures, Spanish, (SC 21), box 19, Grenville Winthrop Papers, Harvard Art Museums Archives, Harvard University.
12. Adam Jasienski eventually drafted a label for the ivory and wrote an article for the Harvard Art Museums' online magazine, *Index*. Jasienski, "Life of an Object: 1943.1082," *Index*, October 9, 2013, accessed July 5, 2017, <https://www.harvardartmuseums.org/article/life-of-an-object-1943-1082>.
13. Bailey, *Art on the Jesuit Missions*, 85–86; and Bailey et al., *Marfins no império português*, 238. Alan Chong attributed Macao's emergence as a key supplier of ivories to the closing of Fujian ports by the 1640s. However, this is an erroneous claim. In fact, Macao's prominence in the Southeast Asian trade waned significantly in the late 1630s and early 1640s, due to several devastating events, including the closing of Japanese trade to the Portuguese and the conquest of another trading port, Melaka, by the Dutch. The Portuguese port in China did not begin to recover until the 1680s. See Chong and Carvalho, *Christianity in Asia*, 205; and Roderich Ptak, "Trade between Macau and Southeast Asia in Ming Times: A Survey," *Monumenta serica* 54 (2006): 479–80.
14. Bailey suggested that ivories were produced in Nagasaki, where the Jesuits had briefly established an art academy called the Seminary of Painters and trained Japanese artists to produce paintings of Christian compositions. See Bailey et al., *Marfins no império português*, 250–54. Regarding Christian imagery produced in Japan, see Bailey, *Art on the Jesuit Missions*, 72–81.
15. Chin, "Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities," 201–2.
16. An exception to this lack of information about specific statues is the ivory of Our Lady of the Rosary, known as Nuestra Señora del Rosario de La Naval, which is documented as being carved by a Chinese from Ilocos, located north of Manila, sometime between 1593 and 1594, for a commission by Don Luis Perez Dasmariñas, then governor of the Philippine Islands. See Regalado Trota Jose, "Imaging Our Lady in Sixteenth-Century Manila: Nuestra Señora del Rosario de La Naval," *Diagonal: Journal of the Center for Iberian and Latin American Music; Proceedings of the Conference Rediscovering a Hispanic Nation; The Fine and Performing Arts in the Philippine Islands before the Invasion of 1898* (2008), accessed June 20, 2019, <https://cilam.ucr.edu/diagonal/issues/2008/TrotaJose2.pdf>.
17. See Trusted, "Propaganda and Luxury," 152; and Esperanza Bunag Gabbonton, *Philippine Religious Carvings in Ivory* (Manila: Intramuros Administration, 1983), 26.
18. Regarding archaeological discoveries, see Marjorie Trusted, "Survivors of a Shipwreck: Ivories from a Manila Galleon of 1601," *Hispanic Research Journal* 15 (2013): 446–62. For a detailed list of ivories with known dates of creation, see Jose and Villegas, *Power + Faith + Image*, 112–21. Chong, in Chong and Carvalho, *Christianity in Asia*, 204, also discussed this issue concerning the dating of the ivories.

19. See Aaron M. Hyman, "Inventing Painting: Cristóbal de Villalpando, Juan Correa, and New Spain's Transatlantic Canon," *Art Bulletin* 99, no. 2 (June 2017): 129; and Jill H. Casid and Aruna D'Souza, eds., *Art History in the Wake of the Global Turn* (Williamstown, MA: Sterling and Francine Clark Art Institute, 2014).
20. See, for example, Bailey, *Art on the Jesuit Missions*. For an insightful critique of these terms, see Thomas DaCosta Kaufmann and Michael North, "Introduction: Mediating Cultures," in *Mediating Netherlandish Art and Material Culture in Asia*, ed. Kaufmann and North (Amsterdam: Amsterdam University Press, 2014), 9–23, esp. 17–18.
21. Domingo de Salazar to King Philip II, June 24, 1590. The first half of this translation is from Emma Helen Blair and James Alexander Robertson, *The Philippine Islands*, 55 vols. (Cleveland: Arthur H. Clark, 1903–9), 7 (1903):220, 226. Minor changes have been made to the Blair and Robertson translation for accuracy and improvement. The second half of this translation was provided by an anonymous reviewer for this article, for whose generosity I sincerely thank. The original text is found in W. E. Retana, *Archivo del bibliófilo filipino: Recopilación de documentos históricos, científicos, literarios y políticos, y estudios bibliográficos*, vol. 3 (Madrid: M. Minuesa de los Ríos, 1897), 66: "Viniendo agora á la narración de lo que toca á los sangleys, tubiera neçesidad de alargarme mucho en esto. . . y lo que más me admira es, que con no aber quando yo aquí llegué hombre dellos que supiese pintar cosa que algo fuese, se an perfeccionado tanto en este arte, que así en lo de pinçel como en lo de bulto, an sacado maravillosas pieças, y algunos niños Jesús que yo e visto en marfil, me paraçe que no se puede haçer cosa más perfecta. . . Banse proveyendo las yglesias de las ymágenes que éstos haçen, de que antes abía mucha falta, y según la abilidad que muestran al retratar las ymágenes, que bienen de España, entiendo que antes de mucho no nos harán falta las que se haçen en Flandes."
22. This term was most likely derived from the Hokkien (a dialect of southern Fujian), *singli* (生理). Chin, "Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities," 187–88.
23. *Ibid.*, 158–59.
24. *Ibid.*, 159–68, 183–86.
25. Philip A. Kuhn has pointed out that Chinese migrants historically did not intend to settle permanently outside China; rather, they engaged in a practice of "sojourning," which is a "strategy of exporting labor and remitting money back home." Therefore, this is a "system of labor distribution that assumes a continuous connection between migrants and their home communities (*giao-xiang*—'a sojourner's hometown')." However, the realities of living in communities far from home often resulted in a more permanent residency. See Kuhn, *Chinese among Others: Emigration in Modern Times* (Lanham, MD: Rowman and Littlefield, 2008), 4, 43.
26. Milagros C. Guerrero, "The Chinese in the Philippines, 1570–1770," in *The Chinese in the Philippines, 1570–1770*, ed. Alfonso Felix Jr. (Manila: Solidaridad, 1966), 15. Chinese ships were called *junco* (junks) by the Portuguese, who transcribed the Malay or Javanese word for the vessels, *jong*. See Pierre-Yves Manguin, "Trading Ships of the South China Sea: Shipbuilding Techniques and Their Role in the History of the Development of Asian Trade Networks," *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 36 (1993): 265–66; and Meha Priyadarshini, *Chinese Porcelain in Colonial Mexico: The Material Worlds of an Early Modern Trade* (Basingstoke, UK: Palgrave Macmillan, 2018), 70.
27. Ray Huang, "The Ming Fiscal Administration," in *The Cambridge History of China*, vol. 8, *The Ming Dynasty, 1368–1644*, pt. 2, ed. Denis Twitchett and Frederick W. Mote (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1998), 148–49.
28. Noa Grass, "Imperial Silver Laundering: The Official Narrative on Gold Floral Silver and the Silverization of Ming State Finance," *Ming Studies* 76 (2017): 10–16.
29. *Ibid.*, 9, 13.
30. Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 8–9.
31. *Ibid.*, 8–9.
32. The Chinese did not exclusively rely on American silver; Japanese silver was the dominant material from the mid-sixteenth century until the mid-eighteenth century. However, American silver assisted the Hokkien trade in the colonial Philippines by facilitating the Chinese merchants' dealings with the Spanish and Mexican traders. See *ibid.*, 11.
33. Joshua Kueh, "The Manila Chinese: Community, Trade and Empire, c. 1570–c.1770" (PhD diss., Georgetown University, 2014), 5.
34. *Ibid.*
35. *Ibid.*
36. *Ibid.*, 5–6; and Arturo Giraldez, *The Age of Trade: Manila Galleons and the Dawn of the Global Economy* (Lanham, MD: Rowman and Littlefield, 2015), 160–61.
37. Chin, "Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities," 191.
38. Crops like yams, corn, and tobacco from New Spain were grown in the mountainous lands, and they were important for supporting China's growing population as sources of food and revenue generators. See Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 13–14.
39. M. N. Pearson, "Spain and Spanish Trade in Southeast Asia," *Journal of Asian History* 2 (1968): 110.
40. Crewe, "Connecting the Indies," 19.
41. Kueh, "The Manila Chinese," 56, 111–13; Chin, "Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities," 188–89; and Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 34–35. Kueh noted that this seemingly clear organization of the Chinese community, however, needs to be taken with caution.
42. Chin, "Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities," 187–89. Women were not permitted to migrate. As a result, many migrant Chinese men married local women, whether or not they had wives back home. G. William Skinner, "Creolized Chinese Societies in Southeast Asia," in *Sojourners and Settlers: Histories of Southeast Asia and the Chinese*, ed. Anthony Reid and Kristine Alilunas-Rodgers (Sydney: Allen and Unwin, 1996), 52.
43. Blair and Robertson, *The Philippine Islands*, 7:220–24. The Parián was initially built on marshy land and was relocated and rebuilt several times following fires. For an excellent study on the Parián in Manila, see Juan Gil, *Los Chinos en Manila (siglos XVI y XVII)* (Lisbon: Centro Científico e Cultural de Macau, 2011).
44. Chin, "Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities," 189. This large Hokkien migration to colonial Manila in the late sixteenth and early seventeenth centuries does not imply that the Spaniards had a favorable reputation in China. Called *Folangji* (Franks or Feringis) in Southeast Asia, the Spaniards (and the Portuguese, who had already reached China in the 1550s) were seen as destructive and militant. See Eugenio Menegon, *Ancestors, Virgins and Friars: Christianity as a Local Religion in Late Imperial China* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2009), 36–39.
45. Antonio de Morga, *Sucesos de las Islas Filipinas*, trans. and ed. J. S. Cummins (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1971), 314.
46. Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 15.
47. *Ibid.*
48. A recent linguistic study on the language used in the colonial Philippines has shown that the Chinese population spoke Hokkien, which itself was likely a mixed dialect. See Henning Klöter, *The Language of the Sangleys: A Chinese Vernacular in Missionary Sources of the Seventeenth Century* (Leiden, the Netherlands: Brill, 2011).
49. Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 29. This is because dialects spoken by various groups were mutually unintelligible.
50. Lucille Chia, "The Butcher, the Baker, and the Carpenter: Chinese Sojourners in the Spanish Philippines and Their Impact on Southern Fujian (Sixteenth–Eighteenth Centuries)," *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 49 (2006): 509–34; and Joshua Kueh, "Adaptive Strategies of Parián Chinese Fictive Kinship and Credit in Seventeenth-Century Manila," *Philippine Studies: Historical & Ethnographic Viewpoints* 61 (2013): 362–84. See also Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 42.
51. Kueh, "Adaptive Strategies," 368.
52. Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 46.
53. Fearful of the Chinese invasion of the Philippines, the Spaniards, together with Tagalogs, engaged in large-scale massacres of the Chinese population in Manila. These massacres occurred in 1603, 1639, 1662, 1686, and 1762.
54. See Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 35; and Schafer, *The Crafting of the 10,000 Things*, 93.
55. Salazar to Philip II, quoted in Blair and Robertson, *The Philippine Islands*, 7:226.
56. Kuhn, *Chinese among Others*, 43. What undergirded such occupational niches like ivory carving was compatriotism, or shared native bonds. As Kuhn has pointed out (45), "Finding an economic niche in a venue society [such as colonial Manila] and protecting it from competitors led immigrant merchants and artisans to form guilds based on compatriot ties to secure occupational turfs."
57. Derek Gillman, "Ming and Qing Ivories: Figure Carving," *Chinese Ivories from Shang to the Qing* (London: British Museum Publications, 1984), 35; and Craig Clunas,

Chinese Carving (London: Victoria and Albert Museum, 1996), 18–21.

58. Clunas, *Chinese Carving*, 7; and Derek Gillman, “A Source of Rhinoceros Cups in the Late Ming Dynasty,” *Orientations* 15 (1984): 10–17.

59. See Jonathan Hay, *Sensuous Surfaces: The Decorative Object in Early Modern China* (Honolulu: University of Hawai‘i Press, 2010), 46–47.

60. Michael N. Pearson, *Port Cities and Intruders: The Swahili Coast, India, and Portugal in the Early Modern Era* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1998), 48, 86–87. See also Rui d’Ávila Lourido, “Marfim,” *DITEMA: Dicionário Temático de Macau*, vol. 3 (Macao: Universidade de Macau, 2011), 956–58. The Philippine Islands had long been involved in the Southeast Asian trade, importing different types of goods, including ivory, lacquerware, silks, and glass beads, for centuries before the Spanish arrived in Manila. Export items from the islands included honey, mother-of-pearl, coral, and beeswax. See Monique Crick, “Ceramic Trade in Southeast Asia c. 1500 as Seen through Two Shipwreck Cargoes Found in Philippines [sic]: The Lena Shoal and the Santa Cruz,” in *16 zhi 17 shi ji de hai shang si chou zhi lu* “*guo ji xue shu yan tao hui lun wen ji*” [Proceedings of the International Symposium on the 16–17th Century Maritime Silk Road], ed. Jun Wei (Guangzhou: Ling nan mei shu chu ban she, 2016), 315.

61. Even the missionaries invested in the galleon trade. See Barbara Watson Andaya, “Between Empires and Emporia: The Economics of Christianization in Early Modern Southeast Asia,” *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 53 (2010): 357–92.

62. For example, compare a seventeenth-century ivory of Our Lady of the Rosary in the Museo de Historia Mexicana, Monterrey, Mexico (cat. no. 19 in Estella Marcos, *Ivories from the Far Eastern Provinces*, 84–85) with a Mexican tin-glazed earthenware from about 1680–1700 at the Metropolitan Museum of Art, New York, acc. no. 11.87.36 (<https://www.metmuseum.org/art/collection/search/9198>); or a seventeenth- or eighteenth-century ivory of Saint Francis Xavier (cat. no. 54 in Estella Marcos, *Ivories from the Far Eastern Provinces*, 136–39) with ceramic tiles dated to about 1730 at the church of San Francisco Acatepec in Puebla (Gauvin Alexander Bailey, “Asia in the Arts of Colonial Latin America,” in *The Arts in Latin America, 1492–1820* [Philadelphia: Philadelphia Museum of Art, 2006], 66). See also Margaret E. McQuade, “Loza Poblana: The Emergence of a Mexican Ceramic Tradition” (PhD diss., City University of New York, 2005); and George Kuwayama, *Chinese Ceramics in Colonial Mexico* (Los Angeles: Los Angeles County Museum of Art, 1997).

63. See Yao-Fen You, “The ‘Infinite Variety’ of Netherlandish Carved Altarpieces,” *Nederlands Kunsthistorisch Jaarboek* 67 (2017): 35–76.

64. Pedro Chirino, *Relacion de las Islas Filipinas / The Philippines in 1600*, trans. Ramón Echevarria (Manila: Historical Conservation Society, 1969), 270; and Jose, “Imaging Our Lady in Sixteenth-Century Manila,” 3.

65. For the *Evangelicae historiae imagines*, see Estella Marcos, *Ivories from the Far Eastern Provinces*, 48–49. For an overview of the production of this publication, see Jan van der Stock, ed., *The Wierix Family:*

Book Illustrations, pt. 2, *The New Hollstein Dutch & Flemish Etchings, Engravings and Woodcuts, 1450–1700* (Ouderkerk aan den IJssel, the Netherlands: Sound & Vision, 2007), 3–7. For a discussion of how Chinese migrant carvers would have translated a European printed image into a free-standing sculpture in ivory, see Stephanie Porras, “Locating Hispano-Philippine Ivories,” *Colonial Latin American Review* 29 (2020): 271. DOI: 10.1080/10609164.2020.1755940.

66. Dan Ewing, “Marking Art in Antwerp, 1460–1560: Our Lady’s *Pand*,” *Art Bulletin* 72 (1990): 558–84; and Filip Vermeulen, “Exporting Art across the Globe: The Antwerp Art Market in the Sixteenth Century,” *Nederlands Kunsthistorisch Jaarboek* 50 (1999): 13–29.

67. Vermeulen, “Exporting Art across the Globe,” 22; and Johannes Albertus Goris, *Étude sur les colonies marchandes méridionales (Portugais, Espagnols, Italiens) à Anvers de 1488 à 1567* (Louvain, Belgium: Librairie universitaire, 1925), 283–84.

68. See Estella Marcos, *Ivories from the Far Eastern Provinces*, 51, 100, no. 2, 105; and Jose and Villegas, *Power + Faith + Image*, 65.

69. Beatrice Gilman Proske, *Juan Martínez Montañés: Sevillian Sculptor* (New York: Hispanic Society of America, 1967), 52.

70. Hyman, “Inventing Painting,” 109, 116–20.

71. *Ibid.*, 104.

72. See for example Ryan Dominic Crewe, “Pacific Purgatory: Spanish Dominicans, Chinese Sangleys, and the Entanglement of Mission and Commerce in Manila, 1580–1620,” *Journal of Early Modern History* 19 (2015): 337–65.

73. Clunas, *Chinese Carving*, 14; and Gillman, “Ming and Qing Ivories,” 35.

74. A few examples of ivories depicting a nude reclining female figure are dated to the late Ming period (1580–1644). Gillman, “Ming and Qing Ivories,” 41–42, 112–13, attributes the model for these nude female figures to ivory figures of the Christ child.

75. *Ibid.*, 13–14.

76. *Ibid.*, 39.

77. Gazetteers are records of local administrators and their offices, natural landscapes, built structures, and populations and customs. They were written with the intent of increasing wealth, power, and influence by promoting a specific metropolitan area, prefecture, or district. This record from 1628 also mentions chopsticks, cups, belt plaques, and fans made of ivory. See James M. Hargett, “Song Dynasty Local Gazetteers and Their Place in the History of *Difangzhi* Writing,” *Harvard Journal of Asiatic Studies* 56 (1996): 405–7, 431; and Peter K. Bol, “The Rise of Local History: History, Geography, and Culture in Southern Song and Yuan Wuzhou,” *Harvard Journal of Asiatic Studies* 61 (2001): 37–38.

78. Gillman, “Ming and Qing Ivories,” 39.

79. Francisco Colín, *Labor evangelica, ministerios apostolicos de los obreros de la Compania de Jesus, fundacion, y progresos de su provincia en las Islas Filipinas*, vols. 1–3 (Madrid, 1663); and José S. Arcilla, “Jesuit Historians of the Philippines,” *Philippine Studies* 44 (1996): 381–84.

80. Francisco Colín, quoted in Blair and Robertson, *The Philippine Islands*, 40 (1906): 62.

81. Marilyn R. Canta, “Indian Textiles in the Philippines: Contexts of Encounter and Traces of Practice” (PhD diss., University of the Philippines, 2014), 168–69. A dhoti is worn by wrapping the fabric around the hips and thighs, with one end brought between the legs and tucked in at the waist. *Encyclopaedia Britannica Online*, Academic ed., s.v. “dhoti,” accessed April 8, 2019, <http://academic-eb-com.ezp-prod1.hul.harvard.edu/levels/collegiate/article/dhoti/30233>. I thank Rachel Parikh for providing additional insight into Hindu male clothing.

82. Morga, *Sucesos de las Islas Filipinas*, 248, also mentions a very similar type of breeches worn by natives in Luzon that might be identical to that described in Colín’s account: “[The natives in Luzon island] also wore a red cloth around the waist and between the legs so that it covered the private parts and came half-way down the thighs. These are called *bahaques*.”

83. Kueh, “The Manila Chinese,” 112.

84. *Ibid.*

85. Schafer, *The Crafting of the 10,000 Things*, 103–4.

86. See Jie Zhao, *Brush, Seal and Abacus: Troubled Vitality in Late Ming China’s Economic Heartland, 1500–1644* (Hong Kong: Chinese University Press, 2018), 11–59.

87. Julie Lauffenburger, who has examined almost one hundred South and Southeast Asian ivories, also remarked that this glossiness is found only in the sculptures made in the Philippines. Lauffenburger, email message to author, June 7, 2019.

88. Navarro de Pintado, *Marfiles cristianos del Oriente en Mexico*, 24. I thank Lauffenburger for alerting me to this reference.

89. See Arthur MacGregor, *Bone, Antler, Ivory and Horn: The Technology of Skeletal Materials since the Late Roman Period* (London: Croom Helm, 1985), 58. Pliny also mentioned the use of rough skin from a type of shark known to us as *Squalus squatina* for polishing ivory. See Pliny the Elder, *The Natural History* 9.14, trans. Henry T. Riley (London: H. G. Bohn, 1855), Perseus Digital Library, accessed December 3, 2018, <http://data.perseus.org/citations/urn:cts:latinLit:phi0978.phi001.perseus-engr:9.14>.

90. John G. Ayers, *Blanc de Chine: Divine Images in Porcelain* (New York: China Institute in America, 2002). It has been suggested that ivory carving might have influenced the production of blanc de chine porcelains. See Bailey, *Marfins no império português*, 239; and Chong and Carvalho, *Christianity in Asia*, 205.

91. Dutch vessels also shipped them to Europe. See Michael Flecker, “Two 17th Century Chinese Junks: A Comparison,” in Wei, *16 zhi 17 shi ji*, 42.

92. Hay, *Sensuous Surfaces*, 82.

93. *Ibid.*, 43; and Schafer, *The Crafting of the 10,000 Things*, 101.

94. Denise P. Leidy, Wai-fong Anita Siu, and James C. Y. Watt, “Chinese Decorative Arts,” *Metropolitan Museum of Art Bulletin* 55 (1997): 52.

95. Hay, *Sensuous Surfaces*, 82–83.

96. *Ibid.*, 83.

97. These decorative patterns are common in seventeenth- and eighteenth-century Southeast Asian ivories.

98. According to Hay, *Sensuous Surfaces*, 63, Chinese decorative objects from the Ming and Qing periods tend to be “in a state of potential or just completed movement.”
99. Ruth Barnes, Steven Cohen, and Rosemary Crill, *Trade, Temple & Court: Indian Textiles from the Tapi Collection* (Mumbai: India Book House, 2002), 13.
100. Ruth Barnes, “Indian Textiles for Island Taste: Gujarati Cloth in Eastern Indonesia,” *Ars Orientalis* 34 (2004): 142. Some pieces were also hand painted.
101. Barnes, *ibid.*, 142–43, has pointed out that the figure’s facial features are stylistically akin to Jain manuscript paintings from the fifteenth and sixteenth centuries.
102. A sari is an outer garment that is typically five to six yards long. John Guy, *Woven Cargoes: Indian Textiles in the East* (New York: Thames and Hudson, 1998), 9, 26.
103. Sandra B. Castro, *Textiles in the Philippine Colonial Landscape: A Lexicon and Historical Survey* (Quezon City, Philippines: Ateneo de Manila University Press, 2018), 3, 43–44, 67–68, 75–76. For an overview of Indian textiles in the Philippines and their impact on the Filipino production of cotton cloths, see Canta, “Indian Textiles in the Philippines.”
104. James C. Boyajian, *Portuguese Trade in Asia under the Habsburgs, 1580–1640* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1993), 30, 78–79. For an overview of Portuguese New Christians, see Antônio José Saraiva, *The Marrano Factory: The Portuguese Inquisition and Its New Christians, 1536–1765*, trans. and ed. H. P. Salomon and I. S. D. Sassoon (Leiden, the Netherlands: Brill, 2001).
105. Boyajian, *Portuguese Trade in Asia under the Habsburgs*, 76–80; and Eva Alexandra Uchmany, “Encounters between New Spain and the Indian Subcontinent during the Colonial Period,” in *India-Mexico: Similarities and Encounters throughout History*, ed. Uchmany (New Delhi: Macmillan, 2003), 95–98. Diogo’s property was seized by the Manila authorities on orders from the Mexican Inquisition in 1598.
106. S. P. Sen, “The Role of Indian Textiles in Southeast Asian Trade in the Seventeenth Century,” *Journal of Southeast Asian History* 3 (1962): 98; Leena More, “Indo-Spanish Trade Connections, with Special Reference to French India,” in *French in India and Indian Nationalism*, vol. 2, ed. K. S. Mathew (Delhi: B. R. Publishing Corporation, 1999), 437–45, esp. 439; and Pedro Machado, *Ocean of Trade: South Asian Merchants, Africa and the Indian Ocean, c. 1750–1850* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2014), 19.
107. Ptak, “Trade between Macau and Southeast Asia,” 483; and Om Prakash, *European Commercial Enterprise in Pre-Colonial India* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1998), 290–91.
108. Machado, *Ocean of Trade*, 19; and Chin, “Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities,” 193.
109. Chin, “Junk Trade, Business Networks, and Sojourning Communities,” 193; and Ptak, “Trade between Macau and Southeast Asia,” 481.
110. Guy, *Woven Cargoes*, 7.
111. Sen, “The Role of Indian Textiles,” 92–94; Guy, *Woven Cargoes*, 10; and John Guy, “One Thing Leads to Another: Indian Textiles and the Early Globalization of Style,” in *Interwoven Globe: The Worldwide Textile Trade, 1500–1800*, ed. Amelia Peck and Amy Elizabeth Bogansky (New York: Metropolitan Museum of Art, 2013), 14–15.
112. Guy, *Woven Cargoes*, 14; and Barnes et al., *Trade, Temple & Court*, 15.
113. Machado, *Ocean of Trade*, 21–22; and Pearson, *Port Cities and Intruders*, 48. See also Edward A. Alpers, “Gujarat and the Trade of East Africa, c. 1500–1800,” *International Journal of African Historical Studies* 9 (1976): 24, 35–36, 39. This trade of ivory and cloths between East Africa and western India continued into the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries. See Pedro Machado, “Cloths of a New Fashion: Indian Ocean Networks of Exchange and Cloth Zones of Contact in Africa and India in the Eighteenth and Nineteenth Centuries,” in *How India Clothed the World: The World of South Asian Textiles, 1500–1800*, ed. Giorgio Riello and Tirthankar Roy (Leiden, the Netherlands: Brill, 2013), 53–84.
114. There is only one published example, a fragment of Indian block-printed cotton textile excavated from a sixteenth- to seventeenth-century house in Lima. See Elena Phipps, “The Iberian Globe: Textile Traditions and Trade in Latin America,” in Peck and Bogansky, *Interwoven Globe*, 36.
115. Salazar to Philip II, quoted in Blair and Robertson, *The Philippine Islands*, 7:225–29.
116. *Ibid.*, 7:225–28. To put this into context, the artisans engaged in the production of the famous blue-and-white Chinese porcelain, for example, historically received low wages as a result of workshops competing against each other to supply their products to merchants. See Priyadarshini, *Chinese Porcelain in Colonial Mexico*, 54.
117. See this description and other similar mentions in Blair and Robertson, *The Philippine Islands*, 7:226–27.
118. William Lytle Schurz, *The Manila Galleon* (New York: E. P. Dutton, 1939), 404–6; Giraldez, *The Age of Trade*, 155–57; and Priyadarshini, *Chinese Porcelain in Colonial Mexico*, 72–73. Chinese raw and woven silk goods were brought over to Manila by Hokkien and Portuguese merchants from Fujian and Macao, respectively.
119. In this regard, it is particularly intriguing that book printing in Chinese on Christian (and non-Christian) subjects intended for evangelism and education was never successful in the Spanish Philippines, except for a brief period between about 1593 and 1607, when a few books were illustrated and published in that language. How the production of ivories might have affected book printing in the early colonial Philippines warrants further research. See Lucille Chia, “Chinese Books and Printing in the Early Spanish Philippines,” in *Chinese Circulations: Capital, Commodities, and Networks in Southeast Asia*, ed. Eric Tagliacozzo and Wen-Chin Chang (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2011), 259–82. See also Sara Ryu, “Molded and Modeled: Sculptural Replication in the Early Modern Transatlantic World,” in *At the Crossroads: The Arts of Spanish America and Early Global Trade, 1492–1850, Papers from the 2010 Mayer Center Symposium at the Denver Art Museum*, ed. Donna Pierce and Ronald Otsuka (Denver: Denver Art Museum, 2012), 105–28, esp. 115.